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TRANSMISSION OF THE LITERARY LANGUAGE AND CULTURE: II

The Language of Rus' in the Eleventh Century: Some Observations about Facts and Theories

HORACE G. LUNT

For a celebration of events of the year 988, one might hope for a discussion of the language of Kiev and other centers of Rus' in the tenth century. However, it is well known that the oldest manuscripts and graffiti date from the eleventh century. More specifically, the oldest dated Slavic manuscript from any region is the Ostromir Gospel, produced — probably in Kiev — in 1056–57 for the governor (посадъникъ) of Novgorod. Our reasonably solid basis for discussing the language of old Rus' starts, therefore, in the mid-eleventh century.¹

History entails change. *A priori*, one expects the language of one century to differ somewhat from that of the preceding and following centuries. Examination of the real texts (taking into account the dates our manuscripts were written down) reveals precisely what we expect: there is continual change. Surely the initial period, up to c1150 or c1200,² shows a language with full-fledged syllabic jers (ѣ/ь) and therefore still a Late Common Slavic dialect.³ Yet the morphemic restructuring aptly termed the jer-

¹ In this paper I present my assumptions and conclusions with only minimal attention to more traditional views, for I am summarizing points I have discussed in detail elsewhere (as will be indicated in notes). To highlight some major issues, I have attempted in Appendix 4 to formulate specific points of view that are widespread in the literature, and juxtapose alternate proposals I find more satisfactory. The order of items, and the suggested division into hypotheses and corollaries, is only one of many possibilities. The list and the precise wording of each item are intended only as stimuli to focus discussion around crucial points of controversy.

² Here, and in Appendix 4, I am purposely giving over-precise dates in order to focus the discussion; I urge readers not to take the dating too literally, but at the same time to think seriously about how we can meaningfully delimit periods that *should* be delimited.

³ Late ComSl is assumed to encompass the divergent development of Middle ComSl **tj/*dj*, the “liquid diphthongs,” and some less pervasive features, developments of the 8th–10th centuries. MCoS is the conventional stage ordinarily written in etymological dictionaries, and I date it after c650. Early ComSl (which need not concern us here) I put in the 6th century (cf.

shift⁴ and agreed by many scholars to be the final phonological change common to all Slavic dialects, affected the vernaculars of Rus' during this period;⁵ on its completion the language of Rus' definitively begins a life separate from South or West Slavic.⁶ During the twelfth century, dialect features begin to appear,⁷ but the split into three languages (Ukrainian, Belorussian, Russian) that can be discerned after c1500 is slow to develop. Unfortunately, historians of Russian culture tend to see everything before 1700 as belonging to one era.⁸ This inevitably leads to anachronisms and other types of confusion because scholars jumble elements of one system incoherently with elements of other systems.

Lunt 1985 "Slavs," 1984–5 "Comm. Sl.")). Phonological changes c750–c950 were gradual and had relatively minor effects on the total system.

⁴ This is Alexander Issatschenko's term for the traditional *loss of the jers*.

⁵ Unlike the previous (and some contemporary) changes, the jer-shift radically affected the phonological, and in important ways also the morphological, system of all dialects. The significant local restructuring determined in large part the divergent developments in different regions and the emergence of new languages.

⁶ The adjective *Rusian* will be used (as an equivalent of *древнерусский*) to refer to the language and culture of early Rus'. The jer-shift allows us to posit *Early Rusian*, still LCoSl, and then *later Rusian* (cf. Zaliznjak's terms *раннедревнерусский* and *позднедревнерусский*, 100), when the stage is set, so to speak, for the subsequent elaboration of new local systems. Whatever terminology one uses, it is important to subdivide the initial period of the history of Russian to allow for the fundamental differences that are discernable between the stage implied by the earliest evidence c1050 and what can be observed for c1300. Failure to provide a subdivision here is, I maintain, a major flaw in many histories of Russian, including Uspenskij 1987.

⁷ An exception is the peripheral northern dialect of Novgorod with its special combination of archaism (e.g. no effects of second regressive palatalization) and innovation (e.g. 'cokanie'), now more clearly visible in the late 11th-century birchbark documents (Zaliznjak) and early graffiti (Medynceva 1987).

⁸ Hence, for example, the lamentable mingling of historically heterogeneous materials in the *Словарь русского языка XI–XVII в.*, cf. my reviews, 1976, 1979. Many of the authors cited in this article illustrate their hypotheses by examples taken indiscriminately from various centuries. Thus Alekseev (5–10) presents, on absolutely equal footing, citations from the *Stoglav* (16th c.), a text of c1165 in a 13th-c. copy, a gramota of 1392, citations from the *Повесть временных лет* s.a. 1071 (in the 1377 copy), Ludolf (1696), the Ukrainian Zizanj (1627; this example is labelled "запоздалый"), and allusions to 988 and Aleksej Mixajlovič (with the admission that the 17th century marks the breakdown of the "Old Russian situation"). Equally dangerous is disregard of region (as Shevelov cautions), a methodological fault that is particularly frequent when 15th–17th-century texts are discussed. For example, Uspenskij 64 cites the Ukrainian Ivan Vyšens'kyj, who is discussing questions of dealing with vernacular Ukrainian and the local varieties of Slavonic c1610, as though the problems are identical with those of Russian stylistics before 1400. The terms "древнерусский" or (as, e.g., with Alekseev and Uspenskij) even "русский," are used when, for linguistic as well as geographical reasons, "староукраинский" or "среднеукраинский"—or even the old neutral term "западнорусский"—would be more appropriate.

Returning to the evidence, we may speculate that certain manuscripts and some inscriptions from Kiev's St. Sophia cathedral may be slightly older than the Ostromir Gospel, and yet there is little reason to believe that the Slavs of Rus' made systematic use of writing before the middle of the eleventh century. Perhaps it is best to put the significant spread of written culture slightly earlier, taking the year 1037 as the symbolic date. 1037 was selected by the chronicler as the appropriate annalistic entry for lauding the piety, learning, and generosity of the Great Prince Jaroslav Volodimerovič, "the Wise." We are not, of course, to assume that before 1037 there was no cultural activity under Jaroslav, but rather to understand that the chroniclers of the 1070s and subsequent decades knew only a tradition that associated the beginning of formal schooling and the spread of the Slavonic rite⁹ with Jaroslav's church-building and general philanthropic activity in the peaceful period starting in 1037 (cf. Lunt 1988 "1037"). I submit that the surviving evidence fits this chronology very nicely. If we assume that 1037 marks the beginning of large-scale Christian cultural activity, the details of the language of the Ostromir Gospel and all other written sources can be put into a plausible framework with what preceded and what followed; it relates them on the one hand to the Old Church Slavonic culture that began in Constantinople and/or Central Europe in 863 and continued through the Bulgarian Empire in the tenth century, and on the other hand to the subsequent development of East Slavic writings in the twelfth century and later. But what about language and writing in the tenth century?

Many scholars have simply taken for granted that the existence of Old Church Slavonic before 900 inevitably meant that some form of written Slavic must have been in use among East Slavs long before Volodimer's official baptism in 988. Thus, the texts of the treaties between Oleg and the Byzantines recorded in the PVL under the years 911 and 912 have been cited to prove that Oleg's envoys were literate, with the implication that writing must have been known even earlier. The more detailed treaty of 945 between Prince Igor' and Emperor Romanus (Lav., col. 54, Hyp., col. 42) mentions "Christian Rus'" among Igor's Varjags and even a cathedral church (сборная цркви) in Kiev. Christianity requires books; therefore, the argument runs, the books of the Christian Rus' must have been Slavic (presumably Old Church Slavonic). In any case, Slavic Christian writing must have been used after the conversion of Princess Olga, which the

⁹ The term *Slavonic* is used here to refer (1) to the written language of Orthodox culture that goes back to the Old Church Slavonic whose establishment is attributed to the Moravian Mission of Constantine-Cyril and his brother Methodius, 863–885, and (2) to the culture associated with that language and its immediate descendants.

chronicle puts in 955. Two of Volodimer's wives were Czechs; surely they were Christians of the Slavonic rite and would have brought some Slavonic books with them to Rus'.¹⁰

With this background, traditional scholarship has gone on to assume that Volodimer's enforcement of baptism and the official installation of Christianity through the Land of Rus' unquestionably meant the establishment of the Slavonic rite, using books presumably imported from Bulgaria. The children of noble families were torn from their mothers, who lamented for them as though they had died, to be sent to study the scriptures (на ученье книжное, Lav. col. 118–19, Hyp. col. 103). If Volodimer indeed established schools¹¹ and these schools taught Slavic, and if the many churches established by Volodimer used the Slavonic rite, as is stated or implied by most standard textbooks, why is it that we have no texts that can plausibly be dated within the half-century immediately after 988?¹²

The answer, surely, is that Volodimer's conversion was strictly supervised by Greeks, and that the churches in Rus' remained firmly under Greek ecclesiastical direction and control. It is perfectly possible that some parishes used Slavonic (and probable that some used Latin and perhaps Armenian and other languages with venerable traditions), but no evidence has survived. The treaties possibly reflect the activities of Bulgarian scribe-translators, but the matter is unclear. For practical purposes, the official introduction of a Slavic written language came with Jaroslav's initiative sometime about 1037.

Some Soviet scholars continue to argue that Slavic writing was widely used in Rus' before 988.¹³ The pitifully meager evidence has been much discussed.¹⁴ Thus the notorious amphora unearthed in a Gnezdovo barrow

¹⁰ The "Bulgarian" mother of Boris and Gleb might have been a Christian from the Balkans, but it seems more likely from the general context of Volodimer's reign that she came from the Volga Bulgars; there is no evidence either way. See F. Thomson, 1988/1989, note 110.

¹¹ The parallel tale from the Syriac chronicler John of Ephesus (cf. Ševčenko, note 59) allows us to suspect that the schools are one of the details added by the chronicler to pad out his unsatisfactorily thin information about the events.

¹² The arguments for dating the *Putjata Menaion* to the first half of the eleventh century (Roždestvenskaja 1987 40, Osipov 56) are extraordinarily weak; it is a conservative manuscript from close to 1100.

¹³ Fedot P. Filin industriously propagated these views in the 1970s in a series of works—rich in imaginative assertions, but poor in evidence—that are frequently cited by Soviet scholars, e.g. by Rusanivs'kyj and Nimčuk, and Rusinov.

¹⁴ As Simon Franklin remarks in his perceptive survey of recent works, the "preoccupation with 'prebaptismal' literacy is symbolic rather than essential," for in fact nobody has really "imagined that Vladimir's conversion was absolutely the first and only stimulus for the appearance of writing" in Rus', 1987 416. Litavrin, in an otherwise stimulating proposal that serious literacy came to Rus' only after the defeat of Samuel's armies in Bulgaria, i.e. 1018–37, unquestioningly accepts all the enthusiastic claims for the *necessity* of writing starting in the

in 1949 with its cryptic Cyrillic inscription has spawned a small library of speculative hypotheses and hasty generalizations. The burial with which the amphora was associated was first dated to the beginning of the tenth century, then revised to about 950, and then again put back to the early estimate (cf. Medynceva 1984 50) — the dating cannot be regarded as fully reliable.¹⁵ As to the meaning, one general line of reading is to construct some sort of form signifying ‘mustard’ (to fit the OCS adjectival form *гороушьно/горюшьно*, which twice is spelled *гороушьно* in the Archangelsk Gospel of 1092), but the letter-shapes cannot be tortured into any plausible equivalents of a reasonable phonetic word — and it is unclear whether mustard was carried or stored in such amphoras. A second kind of guess is a participle or adjective related to *gorēti* ‘to burn’ which would mean ‘flammable’ and denote ‘oil (for lamps)’; the modern *горючее* ‘fuel’ has no parallel before 1550 in East Slavic, and again it is unclear whether oil was transported in this kind of amphora.¹⁶ Most probable is Roman Jakobson’s reading, *гороуѣа*, a possessive adjective from the name *Гороунъ*, thus ‘belonging to Gorun’ and referring to a probable *кърчара* ‘amphora’.¹⁷ This reading takes care of all and only the marks that constitute the inscription, and it requires only that we allow the “softness diacritic” on the letter N to have a shape that is not attested elsewhere.¹⁸ Whatever its meaning, this inscription cannot be accepted as proof of general use of written Slavic in the Smolensk region before 950.

The relatively frequent finds of objects identified as styluses (*писала* in medieval East Slavic sources) in ninth- to eleventh-century-sites has given rise to broad claims for East Slavic literacy before 988, but Medynceva

early 900s, claims convincingly countered by Franklin’s data and reasoning.

¹⁵ Thus Xaburgaev 1988b 16 puts the inscription into the 980s: the “10th century (the epoch of the official baptism)”.

¹⁶ Avdusin, the original discoverer of the amphora, is vague about the question of where such a vessel may have been made (apparently favoring some Black Sea region—where, however, no Slavs are to be expected; 1970 113), and about the storage or transportation of mustard seed, but he argues against oil (1970 112).

¹⁷ Gorun may have been the owner of the amphora or the potter who made it. Jakobson’s succinct but comprehensive treatment of all pertinent aspects of this inscription (especially the parallels in 1952/71 fn. 6) remains unknown to Soviet readers, though his reading is occasionally mentioned. The archeologist Avdusin, for example, dismisses Jakobson simply by stating his preference for a ‘mustard’ reading (1970 111); his off-hand paragraph obviously did not encourage readers like Medynceva to investigate Jakobson’s idea further.

¹⁸ Medynceva’s suggestion (1983 94; 1984 50) that the inscription represents an example of the archaic Slavic “неустроенное письмо” amounts to allowing that anything was possible. Whether this vessel was a local product or imported seems to be unclear; its presence in the barrow in a necropolis at a crossways of trade routes does not, *pace* Medynceva 1983 93, tie it to a local Slavic population. She is correct in emphasizing the uniqueness of this inscription; no parallels at all have come to light.

(1983) commendably points out that such instruments (apparently for incising wax tablets) cannot be connected with Slavic, as opposed to runic or other kinds of writing systems, and that indeed archeologists are not sure whether some of the objects did not have some quite different function.

Far more convincing are the fragmentary inscriptions on five of seven hollow wooden cylinders unearthed in Novgorod between 1951 and 1980. Janin has identified the cylinders as devices for sealing bags of furs or other valuables to ensure that they will reach their destination intact. Not all of the short inscriptions are satisfactorily deciphered, but it is plausible to assume that they indicate the owner and value of the materials sealed with the help of the cylinders. Yet even if we accept the dating of two of the objects to the decade before 988, this still does not mean that the use of Cyrillic writing was widespread during Volodimer's lifetime, and it is far from affirming systematic writing in diplomacy and trade (*pace* Medynceva 1984 59).

Another venerable argument is the Cyrillic inscriptions on coins issued by Volodimer and his son Svjatopolk. These coins show that these rulers wished to demonstrate their power in the economic as well as the political sphere, but the inscriptions are no proof at all that the language was the official medium of administration.¹⁹ After all, Mieszko I of Poland issued coins with Hebrew inscriptions in the tenth century, but no one claims that the Piasts ever used Hebrew for any other purpose.²⁰

A major factor in our speculations about early Rus' and its culture must be the extraordinarily rapid growth and change which began somewhat after 850. New excavations and careful reassessments of old finds show without doubt that the Kiev region at that moment was a borderland zone, with no real center and no definitely princely site, inhabited by fewer than two hundred people. Yet toward the end of the century, in the span of a couple of generations, there was tremendous change in economic, social, and political terms, so that toward the middle of the tenth century a completely new

¹⁹ The seal of Svjatoslav Igorevič (†972) adds nothing to our knowledge of writing in pre-baptismal Rus'. *Pace* Uspenskij 24 there is no reason to posit a princely chancellery until Jaroslav's time at the earliest, much less official scribes who wrote Slavonic.

²⁰ It seems plausible to attribute to the pre-Christian king (963–992) the coins with Hebrew inscriptions, *Mieszko, king of Poland* or *Mieszko, duke* (mška krl polski מֶשְׁכָּא קַרְל פּוֹלִיסקִי; mška dukus מֶשְׁכָּא דּוּקוּס, Zakrzewski 75), but some scholars argue for Mieszko III (1173–1202), cf. Baron 218–19 with n. 58, pp. 388–89; Gumowski 17. As for the Cyrillic inscription волеславъ on coins attributed to Bolesław the Brave (992–1025), though it tells us nothing about an official state language during the reign of this powerful prince, it might affirm a token knowledge of Cyrillic in Rus' from c1018 (probably in the western zone of "Red Rus'"), cf. Kiersnowski. On the other hand, perhaps they were minted for this same area by Bolesław II in the 1070s: the question is open.

framework of human society developed.²¹ Not long after 900 the population was already to be numbered in the thousands, and a brisk trade was being conducted with the East, the Volga Bulgars, and especially Byzantium. By about 950 there was a complex new social milieu, with a clearly polyethnic society, a princely class, architects, master builders, craftsmen of many types, and probably even clergymen. The rate of growth continued or even increased, so that at the time of Volodimer's conversion Kiev presented an assemblage of monumental architecture unparalleled in Eastern Europe north of Cherson. Although it continued to attract craftsmen and merchants from elsewhere (e.g. the declining towns of the former Khazar dominions), Kiev by 1000 was less obviously a polyethnic center; the newcomers of a generation or two before were losing their most salient ethnic characteristics. From the beginning, the majority was apparently Slavic, and it would seem that other groups assimilated to increase the Slavic component of the populace as a whole.²²

Similarly, in 900 Novgorod hardly existed at all, but by 950 it was a flourishing urban trade center whose polyethnic society continued its rapid improvement for the next century. There too we may assume a large Slavic component from the beginning, and the absorption of many members of other ethnic groups as the city and its influence grew.²³

These tumultuous changes culminated finally in the politics of the early twelfth century, which had taken on forms familiar from Byzantium, although of course with local variants. In attempting to reconstruct the various stages of development, we must allow that in the earlier periods the society was one which had little use for writing. Then, gradually, the need was felt for keeping accounts in some fashion, and the cylindrical seals and

²¹ The belief that Kiev was a city, the "center of the land of Rus'," as early as c500 (e.g. Rusanivs'kyj and Nimčuk; Trubačev, 259) is not supported by archeological evidence; see Callmer 1981, Mezentsev, Mocja 1979, Mühle, and in particular Callmer 1988.

²² The polyethnic multilingual society was probably served by at least two *lingua francas*, one Scandinavian and one East Slavic, and very likely also a third, Turkic. The triumph of Slavic, finally assured by the eventual establishment of written Slavonic, was so complete that it obliterated virtually all traces of the hypothetical non-Slavic languages.

²³ Assimilation of speakers of other languages fosters the development of an urban koiné, as a rule, favoring the leveling of dialect variations in the speech of the dominant group—here the East Slavs. Continual movement of populations and individuals to and from not only centers like Kiev and Novgorod but outlying settlements is attested in our written sources and confirmed in detail by archeology. Thus, for example, an outpost on the southern frontier, near modern Žovnyno (on the Sula a few miles north of the Dnepr), was inhabited in the early 1100s by newcomers from among the Balts, Sever, Radmiči, Kriviči, and the Poljane, see Mocja 1983. This kind of multiethnic settlement is precisely the sort of community where a compromise dialect is likely to emerge within a couple of generations (cf. Lunt 1985 "Slavs").

the coins show that writing with the Cyrillic alphabet could be used.²⁴ Yet this still does not mean that even the official installation of Christianity in Rus' brought about the immediate introduction of systematic written communications and records for administrative or state purposes.²⁵ The results of the spectacular expansion of learning can be observed by c1120, but it is methodologically wrong to project them back to c1020. If we assume that the efforts to use writing beyond the narrow sphere of church books and perhaps administration began in the 1050s, then the kind of standardized language used for all sorts of purposes about 1100 is entirely explicable. It was Christianity in the garb of the Slavonic rite, with books imported from the former territory of the Bulgarian Empire, and also surely from Bohemia and possibly from Croatia, that formed the basis of the new written culture of Rus'.

*

Scholarly tradition for two hundred years has taken it for granted that Slavonic and Russian are, and always have been, different languages. The fact that texts regularly employ forms whose shape is flawless OCS (градъ or вѣръ or хощете) side by side with forms displaying certain East Slavic features (городъ, берегъ, хощете), and that in the eighteenth and nineteenth centuries the former were defined specifically as Slavonic²⁶ and/or solemn, elevated style, has invariably been interpreted as a linguistic dualism imposed on Rus' from the moment OCS books were brought by Christians, whether before or after 988. Ordinarily two quite distant systems are posited, (a) South Slavic, ecclesiastical, foreign book-language, versus (b) East Slavic, all-purpose native vernacular mother-tongue. Yet scholars who have become familiar with the texts of early Rus' inevitably sense a unity of language that somehow transcends the obvious variation. Many of the studies about Russian literature before c1400 or Russian and Ukrainian literature c1400–c1750 are attempts to reconcile the aprioristic two-language dogma with the holistic insight that medieval writers were not bothered by the apparently contradictory elements. In the face of the evidence

²⁴ We may also assume that runic writing was used by some Scandinavians (and perhaps Turkic speakers), Hebrew by Jewish (and/or Khazar) traders, and Arabic or Persian by still other merchants.

²⁵ Xaburgaev 1988b is commendably sober about pre-988 evidence for writing.

²⁶ *Old (Church) Slavonic* refers specifically to the language of a small group of texts (whose make-up varies somewhat; my list is more restrictive than that of some other scholars, cf. Lunt 1974) and to hypothetical texts written before about 1025 in the Bulgarian Empire or in Moravia and Bohemia. Linguistically modified copies of these old texts are termed simply *Slavonic*, with appropriate modifiers as needed; thus the early East Slavic copies (and original works imitating this language) are Russian Slavonic, while copies and texts of later centuries may be called Muscovite Slavonic, south Ukrainian Slavonic, and the like.

traditionally interpreted as implying that literate East Slavs must—by definition—have been bilingual, Russian scholars have nonetheless shied away from the label *bilingualism*.

Since 1950, the availability of tape recorders has allowed linguists to record real language as used in real situations. Massive studies of linguistic communities in Asia and Africa (as well as Europe and America) have revealed incredibly complex variations of bilingualism (and multilingualism). Moreover, as communities that had hitherto been without literacy (or had used some foreign system) have demanded their own written languages, practical considerations about alphabets and standardization have pushed investigators to work out refined theoretical models for classifying the new facts—in particular to define kinds and degrees of bilinguism. One result was a new concept: *diglossia*.

The major features of diglossia are (1) the concurrent use of two related but objectively different linguistic systems within a single speech community, and (2) the perception of speakers that this complex code is a single system, a single “language.” A usual concomitant is that the variants are perceived as “good/pure” = *high* and “bad/undesirable” = *low*; written forms of language ordinarily approximate the high variant and the vernacular forms the low.²⁷ This framework seemed tailor-made for the linguistic situation in Rus’, and in 1973 Boris A. Uspenskij suggested how it might be applied.²⁸ A decade later he presented a far more elaborate scheme (1983) that was approved by a few (e.g. Hüttl-Folter, Seeman, Straxov) but rejected by many. Indeed, two slim volumes, one produced in Moscow (Žukovskaja) and one in Leningrad (Kolesov), were largely devoted to objections.²⁹ As Worth remarked about earlier literature on the origins of

²⁷ The religious factor is paramount in the case of Arabic and Greek diglossia; the written usage holds to centuries-old traditions, while the spoken common language (which varies regionally) has changed in fundamental ways and constitutes a new system or systems. In Czech, the gap between speech and writing was created when the linguistic legislators c1800 consciously reached back to the literature of the 16th century, thus establishing patterns that had gone out of use in Bohemia in the 1700s. For modern Czech, however, the dichotomy is “high/correct” versus “low/inappropriate”; the average educated person does not perceive most of the choices as involving archaism versus relatively new features.

²⁸ The notion was accepted with enthusiasm by Alexander Issatschenko, Gerta Hüttl (-Worth)-Folter, and K. D. Seeman, among others; for the literature to 1978, see Worth. Of these, only Worth paid attention to the considerations mentioned in the previous note; he concluded that *diglossia* in Ferguson’s original complex definition is not suitable for the situation in medieval Russia.

²⁹ For hyperpatriotic Russians, who insist that from the beginning a “Russian literary language” existed, in opposition to the borrowed Slavonic, the proposal that early Rus’ was diglossic is particularly repugnant, since the borrowed, sacred Slavonic must be defined as high style, while the native vernacular dialects occupy the status of low style. That anything “Russian” could possibly be “low” is, in this view, unthinkable.

the Russian “literary” language, “some of this is amusing, some is sad, but all in all very little is new” (1978 371); most of it is sterile theorizing.³⁰

The chief obstacle to progress is the sheer weight of tradition. The long lists of quotations from earlier scholarship (e.g. in Gorškov and Rusinov) lead at best to slight modifications of old definitions, but certain key assumptions are monotonously reiterated: (1) OCS and eleventh-century East Slavic are genetically related but fundamentally different languages; (2) the East Slavs had a long tradition of oral “literary texts”—some of these must have been written down as soon as systematic writing became available; (3) topics and therefore written genres were necessarily *either* religious *or* secular; (4) early East Slavic writing must have included pure native language texts in clear distinction to pure OCS texts, with an intermediate spectrum of mixed language. These propositions are untenable.

First, all the evidence, I maintain, is strongly against (1): the dialects of Bulgaria and Rus' were obviously different but linguistically very close. The southern dialect features were no hinderance to easy communication, and some of the most striking ones were quite acceptable to the East Slavs for purposes of writing. Samenesses at every structural level—phonological, morphological, syntactic, lexical—overwhelmingly outnumber differences. *OCS and early Russian were variant forms of a single language.*³¹ To assume that they were two languages is anachronistic, for it

³⁰ Perhaps most amusing and at the same time sad is the accusation (Rusinov 47–8, fn. 25) that Uspenskij and Hüttl-Folter continue the political and ideological traditions of the ninth-century “trilingual heretics” (трязычники) who persecuted Cyril and Methodius. Rusinov's terminology for judging contemporary scholars is thus religious: why?

³¹ The French term *vieux slave* is accurate: Vaillant's *Manuel* is a grammar of Late Common Slavic, and it accounts for Russian of the period to c1200 virtually completely. For a detailed discussion of the relationship of OCS to Early Russian, see Lunt 1987. Appendix 1, below, provides an abridged account of the phonological system, Appendix 2 is an excursus on the verbal system, while Appendix 3 lists potential OCS/Early Russian contrasts, with the conventional choices of the 11th–12th-century Russian standard written language. For the more general background and typological discussion see Lunt 1984, 1985 “Slavs,” 1984–85 “ComSl,” and also 1988 “Kiev.” — My conclusions are based on my own analysis of the evidence, but I merely confirmed to my own satisfaction that Durnovo and Trubetzkoy were right, while the majority of Slavists were mistaken. (For a brief survey of Trubetzkoy's ideas of the '20s, largely unknown in the USSR, see N. I. Tolstoj 220–36.) Independent affirmation of this position is explicit in Ruben Ivanovič Avanesov's 1973 paper for the International Congress of Slavists. His statements of the hypotheses that best fit all of the evidence are excellent (esp. pp. 6–12); it is a flaw in my 1987 paper that I failed to cite Avanesov. None of the more recent literature from the Soviet Union attempts to refute Avanesov—his wise words are simply ignored (an outstanding exception is Xaburgaev 1984, 1988b). The same conclusion, reached via a quite different approach, with citation of different evidence, is elaborated by George Shevelov, in his graceful and gracious discussion of Uspenskij's 1983 book. — Some linguists still manage to get tangled up in the terminology. Thus, for example, Kronsteiner believes he has solved all problems by translating the adjective словѣньскъ of the early texts as *albulgar-*

projects later differences back into the eleventh century.

Second, religion in the pre-modern world was all-embracing; everything was seen in terms of God (or gods and/or demons or the like), though of course certain events and topics were relatively remote from the church. To posit a religious/secular dichotomy for Rusian culture is anachronistic.³² Therefore, there is no reason to expect a linguistic reflection of this putative distinctive feature. No “pure” Rusian oral texts have been preserved, and efforts to delimit genres in early works remain highly subjective.³³

Third, cultural change requires time. The East Slavs of c800 were exposed to long-distance trade, to tax-gathering, to city-building, but not until c950 did they acquire the skills to participate in these activities. As they gained experience, they learned to act for themselves, and looked farther afield for models. Volodimer and his sons strove to imitate the Byzantines, and here they were surely aided in vital ways by their cousins who had followed the same road a century earlier in the Bulgarian state. The Slavobulgarians had provided the cultural preliminaries in building an imposing library of written works—nearly all, to be sure, translated, but still an impressive achievement for two or three generations of effort. They did not manage to assimilate all of Byzantine practice, but in some respects followed the ways of the older types of administration. The officials of Rus’ cannot be expected to have learned all the new attitudes and procedures in a single generation. Even though we may speculate that Symeon and his successors in tenth-century Bulgaria had carried their imitation of Byzantine practices to the extent of writing treaties, grants, wills, and similar documents in Old Church Slavonic—an assumption with no concrete basis of tangible evidence whatsoever—it is unlikely that the Rusian administrators during the reigns of Volodimer and Svjatopolk could immediately follow these hypothetical models.³⁴ It would take more time to gain the necessary knowledge and experience to use writing in the way that was obviously

isch. A more thoughtful view is presented by Kristophson.

³² Although *dvoeverie* was un-Christian or even anti-Christian, it was not secular.

³³ Thus, for example, Seeman 1986 adduces no convincing linguistic evidence to justify his elaborate scheme of genres; his arguments rest squarely on assumptions that have no factual basis and are therefore to be rejected.

³⁴ The presupposition that Rusian documents may have been based on Bulgarian OCS models, in turn based on Byzantine customs, is universal (cf., e.g., Shevelov). Given the manifest effort of Symeon to emulate the Greeks in every possible way, along with the obvious destruction of eastern Bulgarian cultural monuments of every sort at various stages between c980 and 1700, it is an entirely plausible assumption. For the moment, however, I recommend that we take the stronger position that the absence of evidence means at the least that we must be cautious in assuming just what those putative Bulgarian wills, deeds of gift, and other administrative documents looked like. The Rusian evidence is, after all, sparse and relatively late.

normal under the very different circumstances that obtained three or four generations later, say during the reign of Volodimer Monomax (1113–25). In the absence of hard evidence, it seems appropriate to assume that writing was not an important tool in the practical affairs of commerce and civil administration;³⁵ the Bulgarian state did not have time to follow the Byzantine model, and it would seem that official written documents in Rus' did not appear before the twelfth century (see Franklin 1985).

Much effort has been expended to show that the concept of diglossia is (1) inapplicable because usage in early Rus' does not fit Ferguson's specifications for a diglossic situation, and/or (2) the term itself is imprecise.³⁶ I maintain that most of the discussion is simply beside the point because it fails to start from the verifiable data. Authors present the definition or model—whether some vague kind of bilingualism or diglossia—and then declare, on the basis of impressionistically selected data, that the definition or model has been proved right or wrong.³⁷ Yet the

³⁵ The written guarantee (клятва) deposited by Volodimer in the Church of the Tithes (PVL s.a. 996, Lav 124) follows established ecclesiastical traditions; the passage tells us nothing about language or about secular documentation.

³⁶ Both of these strictures are valid (cf. n. 27 above); in fact, the vast and burgeoning discussions have rendered the term almost meaningless. For the purposes of this paper I reject the extension of 'diglossia' to concurrent use of clearly different languages (such as Slovene and Italian in the Trieste area, or Guaraní and Spanish in Paraguay), holding that the core of the notion is that each 'language' is reserved for special domains of communication. For early Rus' the evidence of truly complementary distribution of 'Russian' and 'Slavonic' is at best tenuous. I am willing to admit the possibility of this sort of diglossia after c1300 (and more likely after c1400), a period beyond the scope of this paper.

³⁷ The sociolinguistic notion of *diglossia* was originally conceived by Charles Ferguson as he faced the problem of teaching Arabic to Harvard students. (The term itself, as he informs me in a recent letter, he adapted from the French *diglossie*, used by W. Marçais in discussions of the Arabic situation.) He wanted to start with spoken language and practical texts such as might be found in newspapers, but the native speakers who were to develop the teaching materials for daily classes were quite reluctant to offer their own speech habits as models. His definition of diglossia is based on the rather different situations of Arabic, Greek, Swiss German, and the French Creole of Haiti. What is important, however, is not to fit the data of an observable system to Ferguson's original specifications, but to modify the definition—where it is necessary, and with suitable warning to readers—to encompass the behavior of the speakers and writers who use the complex system and insist that it is "one language." Alekseev correctly notes that many objections to the term and to specific applications have been raised; he does not, however, clearly state that the crucial question to ask in every instance is *how* the objectively disparate *elements are used* by the speakers: only then can one formulate a suitable modification of the general terms *diglossia* (or *bilingualism* or *bidialectism*) to see just how this particular language community fits into the general range known from other regions. Straxov, Straxova, and Gippius offer a series of thoughtful observations and suggestions that in effect redefine *diglossia* to fit Rus', but, it seems to me, they exaggerate the distance between the two dialect systems—apparently because of the weight of scholarly tradition. Uspenskij's recent summary (14–18) refines the definition and applies it to selected data from the 11th to the 17th centuries; his approach, however, is too theoretical and the details he does provide are

facts of the early manuscripts allow us to identify linguistic patterns that can be defined by relationships to Common Slavic systems and verified by actual scribal usage. Thus we take as “normal” that words with **tj* will be spelled with “ц” (свѣца ‘candle’), while those with **dj* will have “ж” (межа ‘border’);³⁸ **tort/*tert* will be written with “ra/rě” (or “re,” App. 3, item 7a), and so on. For the first generation of Russian pupils (which may include the scribes of the Ostromir Gospel), the “ц” and “градъ/брѣгъ [брѣгъ]” spellings may have been particularly novel, but for succeeding generations each of these details was simply a part of the task of learning to write acceptably, to the satisfaction of the teachers and supervisors.³⁹ Diglossia is inappropriate as a label for this situation because the number of variable elements is rather small and the linguistic distance between the two systems, conceived as maximally contrasting, is remarkably short; we are dealing with two weakly differentiated dialects. Eleventh-century Rus’ offers simply one more instance of the efforts—known from old and new languages all over the world—to reconcile strikingly obvious dialect differences in a standardized system; it comes rather under the heading of standardization or language planning.

A large part of the authority of tradition lies in the very terminology. “*East versus South Slavic*” calls to mind the thousands of square miles of Rumanian and Hungarian linguistic territory that now separate Ukrainians from Yugoslavs and Bulgarians. The modern contrasts such as R город, бѣрѣ versus Bg/Mac/SC град, бряг/брег/бријег/бриг are automatically associated with whole linguistic systems that differ on every level; indeed they call to mind a series of varying social arrangements, political organizations, and contrasting cultures. It takes real mental effort to set aside all of

insufficient to illustrate the distance (or lack of it) between what he firmly calls two languages.

³⁸ In this paper quotation marks enclose *letters*, as opposed to phonetic or phonemic elements.

³⁹ Why these particular features were acceptable is ultimately, I suspect, unknowable. Yet, even though we have no direct evidence for Slavic linguistic boundaries between Rus’ and Bulgaria in the 9th–11th centuries, we can look for plausibilities. Linguists know very well that isoglosses (geographical boundaries for individual features) change with time and sociolinguistic conditions. Universally—but tacitly!—the isoglosses separating northern features (such as *člž*, *teret/torot*) from their relatively southern counterparts (*ščlžš* or *štlžd*, *trět/trat*) are put somewhere south of the Prut at an early period. Why must we accept this hoary conjecture? Why not propose, rather, that some of these isoglosses were located much farther to the northeast as late as 1050? I suggest, then, that it is possible that some of these southern features were native, in the 11th century, to Slavs from southern regions of the Land of Rus’. — A more traditional plausibility (still, of course, speculative) is that South Slavic speakers—teachers, perhaps a large number of craftsmen and traders—had come to Rus’ as conditions in Bulgaria worsened during the 10th century and then with the disasters of the early 11th century. For a survey of possibilities that have been suggested, see Straxov.

these associations and look at all and only the discernable differences between classical OCS and East Slavic vernacular for c1050. I maintain that a sober assessment of the full range of evidence shows that these linguistic differences are insignificant in terms of the shared agreement.⁴⁰

Certain systematic usages were demonstrably normal by 1100; it makes no sense to label them as OCS or native phonological elements in a text copied during the twelfth century.⁴¹ Declarations that this passage is “Russian” and that one is “Slavonic” are not helpful. We know that the major source for early East Slavic education was Old Church Slavonic, and we know that OCS had its own historical development so that by 1020 it displayed a rich and varied arsenal of lexical and syntactic devices that had been built up during several generations in diverse regions. The bookmen of eleventh-century Rus’ were faced with the problem of mastering this varied material, first to understand it passively, and then to learn to use it actively by making their own selection from competing words and

⁴⁰ Let me repeat that much of the literature on these topics is beside the point. Most of the discussion, both in the tradition that goes back to Sobolevskij and earlier and in the newer controversy about diglossia, defines first and looks at data afterwards, usually superficially. In particular, Uspenskij’s essays and those of his vociferous opponents and allies are engrossed in the elaboration of abstract terminology, fanatically defined, redefined, and explicated in benumbing, hairsplitting detail. What is missing is the sense that the authors of these intricate abstractions have had extended experience with real communication in a bilingual or multilingual or multidialectal or diglossic community and are attempting to match the observed facts of early East Slavic written materials with known behavior of speakers in known linguistically complex communities in the real world. Surely it is better to look at the facts first and then work out suitable definitions whose complexities will match the observable complications that can be demonstrated from the texts.

⁴¹ For example, Dmitrenko provides a desultory discussion of eight folia of the *Troickij sbornik* (recently published by Popovski et al.), that shows inadequate philological training and irresponsible editing. The author provides an impressionistic list to illustrate several items of my App. 3, but omits items 13a-b (Gsf ѡ[о]жѣ, Ар кроупъницѣ, моужѣ), 14 (не мора), and 15 (ѡдѡше). The text is clearly an originally Bulgarian OCS translation that has been thoroughly adapted to Russian norms, with deviations toward local vernacular. Dmitrenko’s remarks show confusion of *sound* (language) and *letter* (spelling) and an insufficient knowledge of OCS. It makes little sense to discuss this passage without the context of the full manuscript, or at least the full text copied by scribe A. — As for the rest of Dmitrenko’s article, supposedly dealing with the whole Uspenskij sbornik, it is methodologically weak (e.g. it fails to distinguish the originally Russian compositions from items inherited from the South or West), hopelessly superficial, and contains such obvious errors as claiming *намѣненоуоумоу* (a misprint from the edition’s glossary) and *мачитъ сѧ* ‘weaken’ as examples of **tj* spelled *č*. Some prepublication reader of Dmitrenko’s essay should have known that no verb *-mēti-* existed until c1450 and that no verbal root *māt-* with a suitable meaning is known at all. (Similar strictures apply to Iordanidi, who is remarkably careless in identifying grammatical forms and therefore reaches false conclusions.) It is discouraging that the level of knowledge of early Slavic among “specialists” remains so poor (cf. my reviews of earlier publications, 1969, 1975–79, 1984a, 1984b). What are the responsibilities of the *otvetstvennyj redaktor* of a publication of the Soviet Academy’s *Institut russkogo jazyka*?

constructions. The recurrent statement that the East Slavs dealt with OCS as their own property is quite correct,⁴² but it should be emphasized that earlier Slavs had behaved in the same way—precisely because the language first committed to writing by Constantine and his collaborators was indeed for Slavs of Moravia, Pannonia, Bohemia, Bulgaria, Macedonia (and any other region) the same language and therefore “their own property.” It is anachronistic to assume for the early centuries the xenophobic purism that grew up in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries.⁴³

Most of the investigators who insist on the duality in early Russian texts—whether two languages, two styles, or two dialects—ignore lessons learned from the study of other written languages. If one is to look at twelfth-century East Slavic texts as a mosaic of polarized elements, then these principles should be applied to other texts. For example, the first two sentences of Alekseev’s article in the Leningrad *sbornik* contain (omitting the name C. Ferguson) 19 and 26 words, respectively, of which 11/20 are Russian, 7/3 are Latin, and 1/3 are Slavonic. The first sentence is thus 5% Slavonic, the second 11.5%; otherwise Latin 37%/11.5%, and Russian 58%/77.4%. The two together are then 69% Russian, 22% Latin, and 8% Slavonic. Of course this is absurd,⁴⁴ but it is no more absurd than the

⁴² “Уже в XI в. русские люди обращаются с церковнославянским языком как со своим достоянием, как с .собственностью всенародной.” V. V. Vinogradov, cited by Xaburgaev 1984 16, fn. 26.

⁴³ The volumes edited by Kolesov and Žukovskaja reflect a contemporary scholarly parochialism (reflected even in the title of Gorškov’s article) that on the whole ignores foreign scholarship. Hüttl-Foltz, Issatschenko, and Worth are mentioned briefly but usually negatively, but otherwise non-Soviet Slavists scarcely exist. A particularly sad example of parochialism is Barankova, from whose work one would not know that the entire *Hexameron* was published by Aitzetmüller in a seven-volume critical edition that includes full photoreproductions of some East Slavic copies, Greek parallels, and a word-index; many of the points in her article can easily be made from Aitzetmüller’s apparatus. Her discussion would be far more illuminating if she built on the solid foundations laid by Aitzetmüller. Soviet Russists seem to be poorly trained in other Slavic languages and traditions, including the grammar and texts of OCS.

⁴⁴ The countless objections this list should, I hope, serve to stimulate readers to think about the complexities of analyzing standard languages, old or new. My procedures here are perhaps too crude, but they are not unlike Filin’s (approvingly cited by Klimenko 13). As Latin I have included диглоссия (which of course is etymologically Greek but a 20th-c. internationalism) along with концепция, сформулированный, американский, интерес, история, литературный; Slavonic are среди, священо, работ. In the first sentence, “[the concept] вызывает большой интерес среди лиц, занятых историей русского литературного языка,” one might decree that среди лиц is a clear Hellenism, because only πρόσωπον means primarily ‘face’ and by extension ‘person’. Or one might replace занятых with занимающихся to make the clause more Slavonic; alternatively the substitution of у for среди might make it more native. Or среди ... занятых might become у занимающихся; or perhaps у специалистов по истории? What effect do these alternative expressions have on the style or register of this sentence? (The difference between *origins* of elements and their *functions* in a system is an obvious fact that, alas, is rarely noted in this “Old Russian” context!)

analyses of early Russian passages offered by Soviet (and some other) scholars in recent years.⁴⁵ Criteria for decisions are often unclear.⁴⁶ The striking *torot/trat* doublets have understandably attracted the most attention, but most studies are anecdotal. There is still no authoritative list of examples from eleventh-twelfth-century manuscripts, giving the exact relationship in each manuscript (let alone the work of each scribe). Ordinarily samples are given from the *Povest' vremennyx let*, usually with complete disregard of the fact that the copies present serious philological problems.⁴⁷ Ustjugova now ventures a fuller analysis of the entry for 997 (Lav 127.10–129.12). Suffice it to say that Lav has *гладъ въ городѣ* 'famine in the town' but Hyp has *голодъ въ градѣ*; this is but the beginning of the variation revealed by juxtaposition of the five or six manuscripts believed to reflect the oldest layer of the chronicle.⁴⁸ She is justifiably baffled by the lack of clear patterns of variation, and has no space to go beyond rather vague suggestions that each scribe had a sense of context that determined choice of forms with or without *polnoglasie*.⁴⁹ I believe that we can safely say that for the early twelfth century, "trat/trēt" spellings were normal for most lexemes, with a range of permissible "torot/teret" variants that differed from place to place and from scribe to scribe. Further, I maintain that we must recognize that

⁴⁵ Citing a 67-word passage written c1168 (from a copy of c1280), Alekseev 1986 6 says the author "пользуется русским языком." Now, forms like *оже*, *оли*, *аче* and *молвяче* do indeed utilize ESI phonological features that are normally avoided, but in this short text *одна потирь* is bad because (1) the phrase is accusative and (2) a second copy of this text provides *ѣдинъ*: how do we know which variants were actually written by Archbishop Il'ja in the 12th c.? Is this really "Russian"? In Alekseev's second sample passage, 52 words from a *gramota* of 1392, I see nothing "Russian" but the subject-matter. Both passages are, I maintain, well within the bounds of the codified variation permitted in the standard language.

⁴⁶ Issatschenko specified his belief that the East Slavs had lost aorist, imperfect, and active participles by the 11th century; this allows one at least to understand his decisions, even if one must disagree (cf. Lunt 1984 "Writing" 310, 308; see also App. 2, below and 1990, App.). Issatschenko would surely have agreed with Alekseev's assertion that the 45-word PVL passage s.a. 1071 (Lav. 176.27–177.5, Alekseev 1986 7) is Slavonic, but I cannot. Alekseev offers no criteria. As I see it, these sentences are stylistically (and of course linguistically) neutral; the only possible candidate for a distinctive element is the noun *мовница* (**мѣвьница*) 'bath-house', very probably a native ESI word.

⁴⁷ Hüttl-Folter's meticulous analysis makes no distinction between the 1377 material and the Radziwill passages (copied c1485) traditionally used in modern editions to fill textual lacunae. She accounts for every example as a component in a flawless structure—but no such structure ever existed. Her sophisticated definitions do not handle other copies of the PVL, cf. Lunt 1985 "Problems."

⁴⁸ Ustjugova's table (94) and discussion give many, but not all, of the *torot/trat* items.

⁴⁹ Apparently she would like to hold to the authority of the Laurentian copy as a criterion of original usage, but the facts compel her to equivocate. This brief article is not well focused and it rests on a series of unlikely assumptions, but Ustjugova is to be congratulated for attempting to look really closely at the concrete data.

we have no possible criteria for determining the “original” distribution.⁵⁰

My thesis is simple: in the tenth and eleventh centuries there was still only a single Slavic language.⁵¹ The dialects of the East Slavs were still so close to the dialects of the Slavs in the lands that had belonged to the Bulgarian Empire in the tenth century that Old Church Slavonic, though unfamiliar in certain details—and bearing messages that were culturally new and therefore required extended study—was perceived as “our own,” *своѣ*. Objectively, the greater part of the linguistic system coincided, and many of the differences were systematic and easily learned.⁵² The bookmen of Rus’ did not accept OCS uncritically. Although the scribes of 1056 generally tried to copy texts without change, as early as 1076 new norms are visible.⁵³ The OCS vowel system was adapted to Russian pronunciation, but the consonantal system was taken over with only minor modifications. The developing standard is, to be sure, heterogeneous, but it does not involve

⁵⁰ The assumption that medieval writers—and copyists—weighed every word, clause, and sentence for stylistic effect is, I submit, highly dubious, as it is for most modern writers. And if we do accept a milder assumption that writers tried to write “well,” we surely must allow for the human frailties and fallibility that are so frequently mentioned in texts and colophons. That humility is culturally an obligatory attitude does not mean that Russian writers and copyists were all perfect.

⁵¹ Let us emphasize that this complements the assumption that the *beginning* of Common Slavic is to be put no earlier than the sixth century (cf. n. 3 above), whereby both the date and the definition of just what *Common Slavic* means are purely speculative. – For an archeological view, cf. Váňa’s conclusions, stated after a meticulous, cautious, and realistic assessment of the evidence: “the Slavs as a cultural and ethnic unit, in the form known from the sixth century A.D., did not exist in antiquity” (25); “they appear on the scene after the middle of the first millennium A.D.” (26). The Polish archeologist Godłowski, who takes demographic factors into account, agrees. The Soviet etymologist Trubačev’s 1983 scheme of linguistic stages of “Slavic” back to the third millennium B.C.E. relies on outdated archeological speculation; on the linguistic plane, much of what he says is valuable, but the hypothetical language-stages should be called “Pre-Slavic” or something else altogether.

⁵² The North Russian data (cf. n. 7 above) hint at deeper dialect divisions that have been submerging because of later cultural factors. The crucially significant materials from the western zone (Pskov and the “Krivichian” dialect, cf. Nikolaev) are unfortunately not clearly matched by early attestations, but even the idiosyncratic features they witness fit in with the notion that as late as 1100 these subdialects were part of one language with the rest of Rus’ and perhaps broader sectors of Slavdom. The Novgorod peculiarities emerge more clearly; however, I should like to emphasize that even they demonstrate only weak differentiation of this system as opposed both to Late Common Slavic (where Novgorod shares the retention of a stop in **tl/*dl* with West Slavic but against other East and South Slavic dialects, and has its unique archaic lack of the second regressive palatalization, **kěl-* ‘whole’, **rěkě* ‘river (Ls)’ vs. *cěl-*, *rěcě* of the rest of Slavdom), and to other East Slavic (chiefly morphological innovations, such as Nsm *-e* for the *-ъ* of all other dialects) after c1050.

⁵³ Lacking evidence, we can only guess about the process of education. Surely there were some Bulgarians available as teachers, and surely individuals—Illarion is a brilliant (but unfortunately the only) example—spent time among educated Slavs on Athos, or elsewhere outside Rus’.

either bilingualism or diglossia. The disparate elements in competition for acceptability are of a sort that is quite normal wherever closely related dialects are being integrated into a common standard.⁵⁴ In such cases the new standard is then recognized as a codified variant of the native language.⁵⁵ The problems that faced the East Slavs of Rus' from c1050 to c1250 in becoming actively literate were of the order that is, and has long been, commonplace for children in most of Europe. The home language is not entirely acceptable to the teacher, but the task of learning to write properly involves primarily the long process of learning new facts and ideas (along with the words required to express them) and acquiring skill at organizing one's thoughts in ways more complex than those of everyday speech.⁵⁶ The language situation in early Rus' represents a normal stage in the development of the linguistic component of a society that is rapidly growing in economic and political might and continually modifying social arrangements of all sorts. Of course the specific details come together to produce a system of codified variation of linguistic elements that is unique to the time and place, but there is no need to assume that language in old Rus' constituted a social factor without parallels elsewhere.

As to the question of the level of culture in eleventh-century Rus', we must keep in mind that active literary creation also requires education and experience with written language. It is not surprising that on the whole the early bookmen merely copied the heritage of translations received from Bulgaria (and Bohemia or Moravia). Ilarion at mid-century is exceptional both in his literary skill and his demonstrable knowledge of Greek. Otherwise it is another generation until we may assume a fair number of securely educated men; we may posit the beginning of Nestor's literary activities in the 1070s. Yet, as Francis Thomson shows, there is no evidence of an effec-

⁵⁴ In terms of N. I. Tolstoj's sensible list of traits for classifying standard languages (17), Russian was based on two weakly-differentiated dialect bases that were close, as far as we can discern, to the "народно-поэтическое койне."

⁵⁵ Compare, for early Russian, Xaburgaev (1984 12), who is paraphrasing Avanesov, cf. note 28 above; see also Xaburgaev 1988b. Please note that throughout this discussion it is taken for granted that "norms" and "standards" are much looser for epochs before the widespread use of printing than they are for modern times.

⁵⁶ Mastery of syntactic complexity is acquired from teachers and experience in reading, and the precise constructions that are learned are of course those to which one is exposed. Complex syntax is characteristic of many kinds of style in many languages in virtually all periods. What by one set of criteria is contrived, artificial, and regrettable may well be, by another set of criteria, skillful, artistic, and praiseworthy. Even though many Hellenistic sentences of OCS strike us as non-Slavic, there is no reason to suppose that these models could not be internalized by Slavic students and then zealously emulated; indeed there is pervasive evidence that this is precisely what happened, both in Bulgaria and in Rus'.

tive knowledge of Greek at this time,⁵⁷ despite the continued presence of Greek clergymen; broad claims that East Slavs translated many works in the eleventh century (e.g. Uspenskij 30) are not supported by surviving texts.⁵⁸ The PVL entry for 1037 is too obscure a basis for speculation about translation (Lunt 1988). Despite extravagant claims by older Russian scholars, now repeated monotonously by Soviet scholars without a shadow of supporting evidence,⁵⁹ no eleventh-century Russian translations have been affirmed. The available material fits a general pattern: the basic skills of writing and copying must come first—they were mastered by the mid-1050s;⁶⁰ only then they can be put to use—in the 1070s Russians ventured to write their own compositions and to record items from their own history. Competent translation from Greek lay in the future. The chronicler's eulogy of Jaroslav is fully appropriate. His metaphor of Volodimer as the plowman who softens the soil, Jaroslav as the sower who plants the seed, and "we"—presumably the bookmen of the 1070s—who "reap the harvest by receiving the teaching of books" implies three stages: the first stage

⁵⁷ As for Semitic, there is not a shred of evidence that any Slavic bookman before c1350, in Rus' or elsewhere, had any serious knowledge of the languages, much less undertook translations. The repeated assertion that the book of Esther was translated directly from Hebrew into early Russian rests on utterly shabby pseudo-scholarship, cf. Lunt and Taube and the literature cited there. It is unfortunate that the oft-repeated but quite unfounded exaggerations about Semitic translations travel from textbook to textbook (e.g. Uspenskij 40, Robinson's hyperbolic summary, 12).

⁵⁸ Greek hymns occur in Russian liturgical manuscripts, but in Cyrillic transcription; this in no way demonstrates any knowledge of Greek. At an early age I, like every other child in the community, sang *Gloria in excelsis deo* not because we knew any Latin (or even understood all the English words of the text), but because those were the words of the Christmas carol. Important phrases like *kyrie eleison* survived in western Church usage for centuries after any understanding of Greek was lost. *Pace* Uspenskij 32–4, similar survivals in Rus' and Russia tell us nothing about general knowledge of Greek, let alone real comprehension of texts.

⁵⁹ For an egregiously inflated account, based on out-dated sources, see Robinson, 1988, esp. p. 12. Like Uspenskij, he minimizes the original contribution of Bulgarians (esp. p. 10), ignoring such recent works as Popov. Alekseev 1988 has moved the "school of translators" into the 12th century, but for him it is an axiom that translations were made; instead of asking "what are the characteristics of these texts?" and then "how can we localize and date them?" he proceeds at once to discuss their development *after* the 12th century. He ignores earlier objections to his work, although he cites the articles in which they occurred—a prime example of non-scholarly argumentation.

⁶⁰ The calligraphy of the Ostromir Gospel demonstrates that at least three scribes had become master copyists by 1056; by my thesis they would belong among the early pupils trained after Jaroslav introduced the Slavonic rite. (Further, as I hope to demonstrate elsewhere, another Rus' calligrapher of the same school made a more careful—and therefore less distinctively Russian—copy of the same luxurious OCS model, a copy known to us only from two surviving leaves called the Novgorod [or Kuprijanov] Folia.) Two decades surely would suffice to establish efficient scriptoria, assuming competent supervisors. The manuscript models clearly were Bulgarian; about the teachers we can only guess (cf. n. 52 above).

worthy of mention is marked by the new enlightenment brought, through baptism, by Christianity;⁶¹ then in the second period comes the seed that grows to fruition, that is, the written word which is mastered, and now finally the third stage is the harvest, the *книжное учение* that has been won and, presumably, is ready to be used to profit the souls of the faithful.⁶²

In sum, we may assume that there were Christians in Rus' well before 988 and that some members of some communities in this polyethnic society were literate in various languages. From 988 we may assume the steady spread of official Christianity under Greek leadership, presumably with Greek as the church language but possibly with some use of Slavonic books imported from the south (and perhaps the west).⁶³ Yet not before about 1037 is there any concrete evidence of organized, official use of Slavonic as a language of religion and education. From then on the bookmen of Rus' adapted OCS to their own linguistic habits and by 1100 they were using it creatively, not as a foreign, learned medium, but as their own property—which indeed it was.⁶⁴ As for systematic use of written Slavic for administrative purposes, we may surmise that it came not with Volodimer Svjatoslavič or his sons, but under the sons of Jaroslav near 1100. From the non-literate multilingual pagan society of Volodimer in 988 to the flourishing Christian literature in the newly evolved East Slavic standard language under Volodimer Monomax is a remarkable cultural distance; the Russian bookmen of these generations deserve our admiration for covering it in so short a time.

⁶¹ Uspenskij 30 sees 'просвещение' as connected with Jaroslav, but the word does not actually occur anywhere in the PVL. For the context of 1037 we find *крещеньем просвѣтивъ* referring to Volodimer (Lav 152.9), echoing the 988 event of baptism (*Володимеръ просвѣщенъ* Lav 121.5), which in turn echoes the wording of Olga's baptism (*крести ю црь ... просвѣщена же бывши, радоваше сѧ* Lav 61.3–4). *Pace* Uspenskij, there is no reason to see this phrase as having anything to do with books or 'book-learning,' for there is no mention of reading or writing.

⁶² In contrast, Cyril and Methodius are praised for accomplishing the entire metaphoric process as one complex act—clearing, plowing, sowing and finally bringing "the pure grain, the teaching of the spirit, to the Church" (Uspenskij *sbornik* 114d22–29). For the meaning of 'книжное учение' in Rus', see Franklin's article in this volume.

⁶³ On this complex of problems, see Francis Thomson's article in this volume. For a series of considerations suggesting that the liturgical use of Greek in Rus' in Volodimer's time and later is the simplest or "unmarked" hypothesis, see Vodoff.

⁶⁴ The current Soviet habit of calling original East Slavic texts "Russian Church Slavonic" because they use simple preterites and sophisticated participial constructions is unwarranted, see App. 2. The language of the PVL, and various related works about Boris and Gleb, and about Theodosius and other monks of the Kiev Caves' Monastery can safely be called *Early East Slavic* or *Early Russian* or *древнерусский язык* or *давньоруська мова*.

APPENDIX 1: OCS AND RUSIAN PHONOLOGICAL SYSTEMS

OCS and Rusian unquestionably shared a large number of morphemes, including virtually all morphological elements. We must assume a greater disparity in lexicon than can be retrieved from the manuscripts; it is normal in written languages shared by many communities that certain words are regularly written by speakers who would not ordinarily use them in speech. Most important: it is fully plausible to assume that speakers of dialects throughout the Slavic Orthodox world in the tenth–eleventh centuries agreed that there was **one single Slavic language**, with one relatively acceptable written form which, however, was not sacrosanct: it could be modified by adapting details to local norms.

The most pervasive differences between normalized OCS and hypothetical early East Slavic lie in the vowel system, but the OCS *spelling* was an efficient means for writing Rusian. Since OCS /q/ invariably corresponded to ER /u/, and OCS /ę/ always (with the important exception of item 13, see Appendix 3) corresponded to ER /ä/, OCS texts could be read with local pronunciation. The burden was in learning where to *write* the “jusy,” and it should be no surprise that it is precisely the non-OCS distribution of these letters that is a ubiquitous characteristic of the work of Rusian scribes, as early as 1056.

Here are the correspondences of E[arly] R[usian] vowels to OCS, which in these items does not differ from Middle Common Slavic.

OCS	і	ѣ	е	ě	ę	ä	a	o	ѡ	y	q	u	ö	ü
ER	і	ѣ	e	ě	ä	a	o	ѡ	y	u		u	ü	

Old Church Slavonic

Early Rusian

i	(ü)	y	u	i	(ü)	y	u
	(ö)		q	ѣ (ë)			ѡ
ѣ		ѡ		ě			
e			o	e (ë)			o
ě					ä	a	
ę (ä)	a						

Note that OCS *ä*, *ü* and *ö* occur only after palatal consonants and are predictable variants of /a u q/. Early Rusian *ä* is clearly an independent phonological unit; the /±back/ opposition is neutralized in favor of /-back/ after palatals and /c/.⁶⁵ The ѡ of LCoS dialects in Macedonia and Rus’ was

⁶⁵ This premise takes the spellings seriously, and involves the further assumption that distinc-

surely rounded, but for non-Macedonian OCS, as well as most of the rest of the Slavic world, it was unrounded. The *ě* of most OCS dialects (and contemporary Lechitic) was low, whereas in Rus' (and most of Slavdom) it was relatively high. What is important for the period to about 1100 is that /*ě*/ remained a distinct unit in all dialects.⁶⁶ Front rounded *ë* *ë* may have existed by 1100 in some dialects, and perhaps *ü* may have become phonemic, but these matters need not be treated here.

The major phonological difference between the fairly uniform MCoS and the more diverse Late ComSl dialects (which were also the nuclei of later regional languages) is a series of eight "liquid diphthongs" (items 6–8, App. 3). In MCoS these sequences formed a vocalic sub-system, but the changes that produced OCS eliminated all diphthongs from the new system, and different dialects now had contrasting syllables in such morphemes. The high-vowel diphthongs (item 6) very possibly remained as diphthongs in Russian dialects; in any case the spellings generally correspond to the original sequence of elements. In canonical OCS the jer-letter is written after the *r* or *l*, and it usually is ѣ, although in Sav the convention was to write ѣ. These orthographies do not necessarily reflect either the usage of the Moravian Mission or of early tenth-century Preslav or Ohrid; it is highly possible that varied orthographies existed to fit different dialects (cf. Lunt 1962). From the early twelfth century, spellings with *eo* for the "neutral" ѣ/ѣ occur sporadically (but Dobrilo Gospel, 1164, in every possible instance).

The *tert*-diphthongs (item 7a) provide one of the most variable elements in early Russian orthographies, although the tendency to write the artificial sequence *pe* predominates (брегѣ, оумрети rather than брегѣ, оумрѣти). Though disyllabic pleophonic East Slavic forms (берегѣ, оумерети) do occur, they clearly were not considered suitable for writing. It is important to recognize that the variation of the letters *ѣ* and *е* in these former diphthongs is not the same as variation of the same two letters in certain other morphemes.⁶⁷ If a scribe writes брегѣ or пленѣ, it is a minor and

tively palatalized consonants had not yet been established (cf. Lunt 1956), which in turn presumes a series of adjustments connected with the jer-shift. Spellings like *сѣ* or *сѣ* are to be regarded as representing distinctive /sǎ/, which may have been phonetically [s'ǎ] early and [s'a] (with a greater degree of backness) later.

⁶⁶ For problems concerning variant relationships of *ě* to *a* in Late ComSl dialects, see Lunt 1981a, 53–65.

⁶⁷ For some details and special problems (e.g. телеса, срегѣ), see Lunt 1987. — The **tort*/**tert* diphthongs in the southwestern (Czecho-Slovak) and the west southern (Slovene and Serbocroatian) dialects of Late ComSl agreed with OCS, but northwestern dialects (Polish) simply metathesized the diphthongs, e.g. **grodъ*, **bregъ*. These divergent changes were still in progress in the 800s, and perhaps even after 900 in some regions.

superficial orthographic fact that, being within the bounds of standard variation, says nothing about the scribe's language. If, however, he puts *є* in *грѣхъ* or *хлѣбъ*, where the *ѣ* is MCoS, then we must assume that something significant is involved.⁶⁸

The OCS and Russian consonantal systems were almost identical. Both had *p b t d k g, s z š ž x, c č, m n l r*, palatal *ń ĺ ř, w* and *j*.⁶⁹ An OCS isogloss separates a variant system with an affricate *ž* from one with the continuant *ž* (*кѣнѣжи тѣножи* vs. *кѣнѣжи тѣножи*). Very possibly *ž* existed along the southern and southwestern perimeter; in any case, East Slavic has /ž/ in the corresponding morphemes.⁷⁰

The major contrast between OCS and Russian is caused by the OCS two-segment groups conventionally spelled *шт* and *жд*, which function phonotactically as palatal units. In part they go back to earlier **sk/*zg* before **j* or front vowel or **stj/*zdj* and come from clusters **šč/*žž* which are shared by all late MCoS dialects, including Russian (e.g. ER *iščete* vs. OCS *ištete* 'you seek', inf. *iskati*; ER *riščete* vs. OCS *rištete* 'you run' inf. *ristati*; ER *džžž* vs. OCS *džždž* 'rain'). In part, however, they result from a significant local southeastern development that sets OCS apart from the rest of the Slavic world, namely that **tj/*dj* became bisegmental **šč/*žž* and then probably *šk/*žg*. Accordingly, although Russian and OCS shared /č/ and /ž/ in certain morphemes (e.g. *pečete* 'you bake', *možete* 'you can'), there were others where Russian had *č* but OCS *št* or ER *ž* but OCS *žd* (e.g. *хочете|хоцете* 'you want', inf. *хотѣти*; *стражете|страждете* 'you suffer', inf. *страдати*).

OCS	c	č	št		ž	žd		ž/ž
MCoS	c	č	tj	šč	ž	dj	žž	ž
ER	c	č	šč		ž	žž		ž

⁶⁸ The frequent use of *сеѣ* and *теѣ* for DL *сѣѣ/тѣѣ* is loosely codified and of no phonological significance, App. 3, 12a. During the 12th c. more and more confusion develops concerning the use of the letters *ѣ* versus *є*; this may indicate that /ѣ/ and /є/ have coalesced (entirely or only in certain positions or words), or it may simply mean a less systematic spelling, as Zaliznjak concludes for the Novgorod birchbark *gramoty* starting about 1200 (1986, 108).

⁶⁹ The glide /w/ is traditionally written *ѡ* (cyr. ѡ). The unit /š/ is posited for the pronominal roots /š-/ 'this' and (/wъš-/ 'all', which are historically obscure, cf. Lunt 1981 (*Prog. Pal.*), 36–7 and 1987 (*Folia ling. hist.* 7) §6.2.

⁷⁰ The letter *r* may just possibly have stood for a continuant *γ* in southern Rus'.

(Other LCoSl dialects possibly retained **tj/*dj* or a unit **k/*g* for some time.)⁷¹

In principle, written Russian accepted the OCS consonantal system, which in fact only means accepting the consonantal groups *št/žd* for morphemes where East Slavic dialects had *šč/žž* or *č/ž*. Yet by 1100 “*жд*” was reserved for **žž*, while the reflex of **dj* was written “*ж*”.

APPENDIX 2: ON THE OCS AND EARLY EAST SLAVIC VERBAL SYSTEM

The original early Russian works (*Сказание* of Boris and Gleb, *Life of Theodosius*, *PVL*) display a complex verbal system replete with formal distinctions (imperfect and aorist tenses, a series of periphrastic perfects and futures, active participles, supine—many of them with further contrasting forms expressing the aspectual opposition of perfective to imperfective) that are skillfully and expressively exploited by the authors.⁷² A virtually identical system is found in the extensive Czech literature of the fourteenth-fifteenth centuries; some parallels are also to be found in older Croatian and in OCS itself. In the East Slavic area, the system had been restructured by 1600, so that many of these forms and categories were enigmatic for the seventeenth-century grammarians.

When did the old system disappear? On the basis of lectures by Roman Jakobson in 1947–48 and the detailed and subtle analysis of early Russian narrative texts by Cornelis van Schooneveld (a copy of whose 1949 Columbia dissertation I was fortunate enough to have when I began teaching these problems in 1950—somewhat revised, it was published in 1959), further buttressed by analyses published by the Leningrad Slavist Jurij Maslov in 1954, I believe that the Late Common Slavic verbal system is better illustrated by Russian original texts than by anything preserved in OCS. After four decades of reading and comparing these texts (and numerous other works) in copies of various ages, I maintain that no major change in the overall verb system is discernable until close to 1300 (affirmed in part by

⁷¹ Czecho-Slovak and Polish by c1100 had developed *c/z* (which had lenited to *ž* in Czech). Slovene eventually had *č/j*, but SC retained *k/g* well into the historical period.

OCS	č	c	št		ž	ž/ž	žd	
MCoS	č	c	tj	šč	ž	ž	dj	žž
CzSl	č	c		šč	ž	ž	ž/ž	žž
Polish	č	c		šč	ž	ž		žž

⁷² For example, ‘arrived (3s)’ occurs in the *Uspenskij sbornik* as aorists *приходи* and *приде*, and as imperfects *прихожааше* (*прихожаше*; *приходлаше*, *приходлаше*) and *придаше*, and we may assume a possible iterative imperfective **прижажааше* (on the model of OCS *прижаждааше*, (Su).

unpublished work by Emily Klenin); thereafter scribes' efforts to maintain traditional usage obscure the process of restructuring. The new system, essentially that of contemporary East Slavic, was apparently achieved c1500.

Many Russian scholars, starting with the two-language dogma, believe that "Russian" is to be found only in documents and legal codes; such texts have no imperfects, few aorists, and relatively frequent perfects; therefore—to cite the extreme position presented by Uspenskij 144–69—the whole old system had been lost before 1050.⁷³ Yet linguistic forms are used only as they are needed by the message that is to be conveyed. Aorists, imperfects, and pluperfects are required chiefly in narratives dealing with complex past events.⁷⁴ Legal codes are essentially timeless and documents are keyed to the moment of writing, so that past events are usually expressed explicitly from the present point of view, i.e. by means of a perfect.⁷⁵ Uspenskij's exposition is based on his elaborate aprioristic assumptions plus gross oversimplification of the evidence in the form of examples from Lopusanskaja's methodologically helpless book; she treats all copies of Novgorod (and other) chronicles as absolutely equal variants, disregarding both chronology and textology. When one untangles the details that lie behind such examples as those quoted by Uspenskij on pp. 146 and 150, it becomes clear that the language of the easily reconstructible texts of the eleventh-twelfth centuries began to be modified in fifteenth-century copies,⁷⁶ with more and more "corrections" introduced later on.⁷⁷

⁷³ Issatschenko takes the same position; he provides many examples from texts, with flat judgements about how "Russian" or "Slavonic" a given usage is. He is confident that his instinct guides him infallibly to irrefutable decisions as to what is "living language" and what belongs to a series of degrees of artificiality.

⁷⁴ In modern East Slavic, as well as Czech, Slovak, and Polish, the disappearance of these forms has been compensated for by modifications in the aspectual system, along with a variety of strategies requiring adverbs and other contextual clues. Many native speakers of these languages believe in an either/or binary choice: a clear-cut aspectual system like that of Russian excludes a clear-cut tense system like that of English (and, by extension, early East Slavic). This simplistic theory is falsified by modern Bulgarian, Macedonian, and eastern Serbian, as has been eloquently demonstrated by many scholars, including Maslov.

⁷⁵ Legal prescriptions often require conditions and contingencies that favor the use of conditional forms and the *futurum exactum*, expressed in various ways.

⁷⁶ A major flaw in Uspenskij's book is that he, like Lopusanskaja, fails to distinguish *language* from *text*. He apparently does not realize that the language of a text may be repeatedly modified with little or no change of the text itself; conversely, the text may be radically recast without significant change in the language (i.e. phonology, morphology, syntax, lexicon).

⁷⁷ When a copy of a narrative shows that one verb-form has been replaced by another, it by no means signifies that the forms are equivalent, but more likely involves a slight shift in meaning. Whether this difference was planned by an editor or merely reflects scribal inattention (or a flat error) must be decided in each case by the normal procedures of textual criticism.

It seems to me wrongheaded—even perverse—to claim that the early Russian authors were using a foreign system of verbal categories, the more so since this claim rests on the presumption that mastery of so complex a formal-semantic system was acquired in monastic schools from OCS models. In the absence of any other evidence of a high level of schooling in early Rus', it is more natural to accept that the narratives were written by East Slavs in their own language, a language that was essentially a standardized form of local dialects, enhanced by lexical, syntactic, and stylistic means embodied in the abundant OCS translations from Greek. The old verbal system was not lost by other Slavs until well after 1300: why assume, in the face of copious and eloquent evidence, that a new system evolved in Rus' before 1200, let alone 1050?

Lopušanskaja believes that substitutions necessarily signify equivalence. For reasons of space, one example must serve here for many. Wishing to show that the forms of aorist and I-participle without copula were semantically equal, she cites (272) the First Novgorod Chronicle s.a. 955, first giving the wording of copy K (c1450) “бесѣдовавши, рече к неѣ,” then of T (c1760) “бесѣдова к неѣ, рекъ” — implying that the second is a modification of the first. Uspenskij 146 reproduces the words without telling where in the chronicle they occur or which copies are involved. Do these variants demonstrate that the aorist *рече* is semantically equal to *рекъ*? Not at all. The first variant sentence starts with a dependent participle, so that *рече* is the properly finite form; the second starts with an aorist, but an I-participle is unexpected in terms of the old system. Yet if we look at copy A, approximately the same age as K (c1450), we find an appropriate past active participle *рекъ*; T has a hypercorrect form because the scribe could not distinguish the current I-form (*рек* [or *рѣк*] m., conventionally still spelled *реклъ*, but *рекла* f.) from the obsolete *рек* (f. *рекши*). Looking at the context, we find the subject of ‘converse’ is the emperor: K’s feminine participle is out of place. Moreover, this passage, like various others, has been rewritten at some time between c1120 and 1450 by an editor who no longer understood the old system and rather liked forms in *-вши*. The original PVL version clearly had the aorist *бесѣдова* followed by *рекъ* (cf. Lav 60.29, Hyp 49.15); this is an instance where A—usually innovative—more faithfully reflects the ancestral wording than does the usually traditional K. [Space precludes discussion of further complications in this passage.] Uspenskij’s citations of Lopušanskaja’s materials show a disturbing carelessness about philology and chronology; they are inappropriate in a textbook.

APPENDIX 3: COMPARISON OF OCS AND EARLY RUSSIAN

A. Purely phonetic features

	<i>MCoS</i>	<i>OCS</i>	<i>Old ESlav</i>	<i>Rusian (ER) standard language</i>
1.	*ǫ *jǫ	ǫ jǫ мѡжѡу/мѡжѡю ѡжѡе, моѡж	u ju	u ju, written оу, ю, also ж (rare ѡж) моуѡж, мѡжѡж, мѡжѡу, моуѡжоу, моуѡжою ѡже, моѡю (моѡж)
2.	*ę *je	ę je пѡтъ, ѡзѣкъ жѡдати, моѡ слѣша vs. слѣша	*ä *jä	*ä *jä, written ѡ, ѡ [but <i>either</i> a or ѡ after ж, ы, ш, щ (жд)] пѡтъ (rare пѡтъ), ѡзѣкъ, ѡзѣкъ жѡдати, жѡдати, моѡ, моѡ слѣша = слѣша [both pres.a.p. and aor.!]
3a.	*tj	št (шт, щ) свѣща, свѣшта хощѡ, хощѡж	č	usually щ = šč, rarely ы свѣща (свѣча) хощѡу, rarely хощѡу
3b.	*dj	*žd между вижду, одежда	ž	ж; sometimes жд (жд “restored” late 14th c., became common) между, вижду, одежда
3c.	*zdj/*zgj žd	žd дѣждѣ пригвожденѣ	žž	жд usual; Northern жг; Galicia- Volynia жч дѣждѣ, дѣжгѣ, дѣжчѣ пригвожденѣ, пригвожгѣнѣ, пригвожчѣнѣ
4.	*ju-	ju- (initial) югѣ, южнѣ юнѣ, юноша	u-	frequent ю-, usual оу- югѣ/оугѣ, южнѣ/оужнѣ юнѣ/оунѣ, оуноша
5.	*(j)e-	(j)e- (initial) еѣзеро, еѣзеро единѣ, єдинѣ	o-	regularly є-, exceptionally o- еѣзеро, еѣзеро (оѣзеро) единѣ, єдинѣ (одинѣ)
6a.	*tȳt	tȳt/tȳt сѣмрътъ, сѣмрътъ	tȳt	usual тѣрт, often трѣт or the artificial тѣрт сѣмрътъ/сѣмрътъ/сѣмрътъ/сѣмрътъ
6b.	*tȳt	tȳt трѣгѣ	tȳt	usual тѣрт, often трѣт, or the artificial тѣрт трѣгѣ/трѣгѣ (трѣгѣ)
6c.	*tȳlt	tȳlt/tȳlt вѣлкѣ/вѣлкѣ	tȳlt	usual тѣлт, often тлѣт, rare тѣлт вѣлкѣ/вѣлкѣ (вѣлкѣ)
6d.	*tȳlt	tȳlt слѣньце	tȳlt	usual тѣлт, often тлѣт, rare тѣлт слѣньце/слѣньце (слѣньце)

<i>MCoS</i>	<i>OCS</i>	<i>Old ESlav</i>	<i>Rusian (ER) standard language</i>
7a. *tert	trĕt врѣгъ	teret	mostly трѣт or artificial трет, rare терет врѣгъ/врегъ (верегъ)
7b. *tort	trat градъ	torot	трат, rare торот градъ (городъ)
7c. *telt	tlĕt плѣнъ	tolot	тлѣт, rare толот (hypercorrect тлат!) плѣнъ (полонъ [планъ])
7d. *tolt	tlat младъ	tolot	тлат, rare толот младъ (молодъ)
8a. *ort-	rat- разоумѣ	rot-	рат- (rare рот-) разоумѣ (розоумѣ)
8b. *olt-	olt- лакътъ	lot-	examples rare, both types found лакътъ, локътъ
9. *-en-n-	-ĕn- медѣнъ персѣнинъ	*-ĕn- > -än-	mostly -än- меданъ персанинъ

B. Morphological features

(probably viewed by early scribes as orthographic and/or phonetic)

	<i>OCS</i>	<i>Old ESlav</i>	<i>Rusian (ER) standard language</i>
10. Masculine-neuter instrumental singular	-омъ/-емъ село ^{мъ} отыцѣмъ, мжжѣмъ	-ѣмъ/-ѣмъ	ESl forms rigorously used, SSl rare селѣмъ, полѣмъ отыцѣмъ, моужѣмъ
11. 3rd person verbal desinence, singular and plural.	-тъ носитѣ, несѣтъ носа ^{тъ} , несжа ^{тъ}	-ѣ носитѣ, несѣтъ носа ^{тъ} , несоутѣ	ESl forms even in strictest SSl-type mss. носитѣ, несѣтъ носа ^{тъ} , несоутѣ Desinence may appear in imperfect (cf. 15, below) несашѣтъ, носажоутѣ
12. Dative-locative sg. personal pronouns			Mostly SSl, frequent ESl forms. Often confusion with <i>genitive</i> forms <i>tebe</i> , <i>sebe</i> .
a.	тебѣ себѣ	тобѣ собѣ	тебѣ (тобѣ, тебе) себѣ (собѣ, себе)
b.	мѣнѣ (мнѣ)	мѣнѣ	мѣнѣ (м'нѣ, мнѣ)
13. "Soft" feminine genitive singular, nominative-accusative plural, masculine accusative plural; pronominal genitive singular feminine:	(?*-ĕN) -ĕ (-ojĕ, -ejĕ, -yjĕ -ejĕ)	-ĕ	Mostly SSl, but ESl forms do occur (-ojĕ, -ejĕ, -yjĕ, -ĕjĕ)

APPENDIX 4: RELATIONS AMONG LATE COMMON SLAVIC DIALECTS,
ESPECIALLY SOUTHERN AND EASTERN

Theses for discussion

■ Traditional hypothesis

• corollary

1 ■ Three distinct Common Slavic dialects—South vs. East vs. West—*before* the Slavs moved west and south across the Danube, are guaranteed by the presence of three major tribal groups in c600 CE.

2 • The language used by Constantine and Methodius in 863 must have been distinctly foreign either to the presumably West Slavic Moravians or to East Slavs.

3 • In 10th-century Rus', Old Church Slavonic was foreign and East Slavs needed interpreters.

4 • The language of OCS books imported into Rus' from the south after 988 was a different language from that spoken by East Slavs.

5 • 11th-c. literate East Slavs were bilingual or diglossic.

□ Alternate hypothesis

◦ corollary

□ The isoglosses establishable for c850 show only the initial stage of the South/East/West trichotomy; linguistic divergence began c700, well *after* the Slavic occupation of the Balkans.

◦ Cyrillo-Methodian language differed only in very minor ways from that of Slavs in any region.

◦ OCS was immediately intelligible: the ideas of an unfamiliar culture, however, could not be assimilated at once. As new objects, social relationships, modes of behavior, religious concepts were learned, linguistic means for expressing all this were acquired.

◦ The book language was somewhat unfamiliar in certain striking phonological and morphological features, but it shared virtually all of its grammatical structure with local East Slavic dialects (while differing more often in vocabulary) and was received as merely a somewhat deviant dialect. It was the only acceptable written system, but required minor systematic modifications.

◦ Literate East Slavs had acquired additional vocabulary and stylistic devices that supple-

6 ■ The East Slavic polities from the time of Svjatoslav to Volodimir required writing for many purposes.

7 • Civil administration and trade required writing before c950.

8 ■ The official acceptance of Christianity in 988 meant the immediate introduction of the Slavonic rite with OCS books in every church.

9 • The schools established by Volodimir were Slavic (possibly with Russian as a language of instruction, but with OCS books).

10 ■ The absence of written language datable to before 1040 is accidental; surviving inscriptions and coins prove widespread literacy from the early tenth century.

11 • Volodimir's schools created educated cadres who wrote secular as well as religious texts in Slavic.

12 ■ Early East Slavic culture distinguished between Christian and secular viewpoints.

13 ■ The sharp contrast between the foreign Slavonic of church books and the local vernaculars, in particular the language of customary law and folklore, resulted in a strict delimitation of spheres in written language: the vernacu-

mented the means available from a single dialect; all elements were perceived as "ours" and not "alien".

□ The social and economic organization of the East Slavs before 988 generally required no writing.

◦ Christianity required writing, but administrative and commercial activities did not need writing until after Jaroslav's time.

□ Volodimir's ecclesiastical personnel and organization were Greek and the church language was ordinarily Greek.

◦ The schools—if not a mere pious fiction of a chronicler—were Greek and presumably were intended to make the young Rus' nobles literate in Greek.

□ The negative evidence before 1040 implies that systematic use of OCS books was not introduced until the 1030s.

◦ Absence of direct or indirect evidence of cultural activity in Greek or Slavonic indicates that Volodimir's schools had at best ephemeral results.

□ The Christian world view embraced all activities, including all writing.

□ The written language followed the OCS texts as *stylistic* models for complex ideas and elevated subject matter; vocabulary in particular would use native resources to express concrete objects and familiar situations.

lar could be used only in very limited genres.

14 • Alternate written forms signal *foreign vs. native* or *high vs. low* elements.

15 • Early Kievan literature had an elaborate hierarchy of subtly differentiated genres, requiring linguistic gradation of great sophistication.

16 ■ From the 1050s at the latest Rus' (especially Kiev) had an intellectual elite with a sophisticated knowledge of Byzantine culture, including an active corps of translators from Greek and perhaps other languages.

17 • From 1037 on there was a steady flow of new translations and original compositions.

18 ■ The continuity of linguistic structure and culture warrants speaking of "the Russian language of the 11th-17th centuries."

19 ■ The sharp contrast of written to spoken language existed from the beginning and changed only in some details.

◦ Many variables are part of the *linguistic code*. Only a few have definable stylistic value; no Slavic grammatical element is marked *foreign*.

◦ Moderate linguistic variation was roughly correlated with a stylistic range of expression appropriate to different situations and subject matters.

□ In the 1050s only a few ecclesiastical officials were educated above a level of bare literacy (sufficient to read texts aloud with understanding).

◦ Cultural activity before c1075 consisted almost wholly of copying works (nearly all religious, a large proportion specifically monastic) translated in Bulgaria (Moravia, Bohemia, Croatia [?]).

□ Profound linguistic change produced successive linguistic structures that require separate treatment. Earlier Rusian ("Old Russian"), before the jer-shift c1150, and later Rusian, to c1350, include all of East Slavic; thereafter *Russian* is opposed to *Ukrainian*.

□ The written language, c1050 still essentially OCS but adapted to East Slavic conditions by c1100, was maintained as a standard through the 13th century. It gradually became more and more distant from the changing and diverging spoken dialects; by 1300 diglossia may be

20 • Examples from the 13th or 15th century are valid to demonstrate hypotheses about “Old Russian” language and style of any century.

21 • Extant copies of the *Povest’ vremennyx let* provide exact and detailed information about “Old Russian” of c1100 or even earlier.

22 ■ The chief goal of scholarship is to explicate statements by earlier scholars.

23 • Observations made by a scholar must fit the framework of previous scholarship; primary givens are terminology and models.

developing, and archaization and Bulgarization of the book language increases this tendency after 1400. By 1600 the gap between written standard and spoken norms is very great.

◦ The situation changed rapidly between c950 and c1150 and more gradually until c1600. Works (and copies) must be analyzed in terms of dates of composition (or copying).

◦ The copies allow a reasonable reconstruction of the text and its language, but not of many variant phonological details that might have been of stylistic value (e.g., *torot/trat*, *č/šč*).

□ The aim of scholarly investigation is to present the results of principled analysis of specific materials, in our case the manuscripts and other written materials we have reason to believe were written in Rus’ and neighboring lands before c1400.

◦ Facts are primary; models can be built and definitions (like “Old Russian,” or “diglossia”) formulated only in terms of comprehensive analyses of the full range of appropriate facts.

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